Revisiting ContextAgent: A Reproducibility Study of Context-Aware Proactive LLM Agents under Resource Constraints

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Abstract

Proactive Large Language Model (LLM) agents decide on their own when to offer assistance, which requires them to evaluate context continuously and makes their inference cost a first-order concern. We reproduce *ContextAgent* (Yang et al., 2025b), a context-aware proactive agent evaluated on *ContextAgentBench*, using the authors' released code and data split, and then examine whether its results hold under common efficiency techniques: parameter-efficient fine-tuning choices, base-model quantisation and pruning. The central claim of the original work—that supervised fine-tuning with persona context and thought traces clearly outperforms in-context learning baselines—is confirmed for all three base models, and the in-context baselines reproduce closely. However, the fine-tuned models score substantially *higher* than reported, and the gap depends on a discrepancy we identified between the paper (learning rate 10^{-4}) and the released training configuration (5×10^{-5}): with the paper's stated learning rate, tool-calling F1 rises from the reported 0.626/0.647/0.645 to 0.777/0.685/0.740 (mean of three seeds) for Llama-3.1-8B, DeepSeek-R1-7B and Qwen2.5-7B. Training with the effective batch size of eight-GPU data-parallel training reproduces the reported Llama score, but not those of DeepSeek and Qwen. Beyond reproduction, we find that 4-bit NF4 quantisation of the base model roughly halves inference memory without a statistically significant change in tool-calling F1 for any of the three models (differences of at most 3 points), at the cost of up to 53% higher latency with the bitsandbytes runtime. When the pruning mask is preserved after merging the recovery adapter, unstructured Wanda pruning maintains task performance up to 30% sparsity (with no efficiency gain under dense kernels), but reduces tool-calling F1 by 0.10 at 50% sparsity and by 0.27 under 2:4 semi-structured sparsity. Structured pruning of feed-forward layers reduces both memory and latency, but degrades performance already at 10% sparsity. Overall, while the qualitative conclusions of *ContextAgent* hold, the absolute performance of the fine-tuned reasoner is highly sensitive to under-documented training hyperparameters, and post-pruning recovery requires explicit re-masking to prevent adapter merging from restoring dense weights. We release code, configurations, model predictions and score files to reproduce all results.

1 Introduction

Most LLM-based agents are reactive: they produce an answer or perform an action only after receiving a prompt from the user. A different line of work studies proactive agents, which use available context to decide whether assistance is needed and may act without being explicitly instructed to do so (Lu et al., 2024). This changes the role of the agent from answering requests to taking the initiative, which also affects how users perceive and work with the system (Diebel et al., 2024). It also changes the practical cost of running the system. A reactive agent performs inference only on user interaction, whereas a proactive agent runs continuously or at regular intervals to monitor context, decide whether intervention is needed and possibly call external tools. A proactive agent may therefore perform well on a benchmark while still being too costly to operate in practice.

ContextAgent (Yang et al., 2025b) is a recent framework for context-aware proactive LLM agents that combines sensory context, persona information, proactive prediction and tool calling. It is accompanied by *ContextAgentBench*, a benchmark with 1,000 samples across nine daily scenarios and 20 tools, and by a public implementation. The original work focuses on capability: it shows that supervised fine-tuning of 7–8B models with persona context and thought traces outperforms in-context learning baselines on proactive prediction and tool calling. The cost of maintaining this behaviour is not evaluated.

This paper is a reproducibility study of *ContextAgent*. We first reproduce the main results on *ContextAgentBench* with the authors' code and data split. We then test whether the conclusions hold, and at what cost, when the fine-tuned reasoner is made cheaper to train and run with widely used efficiency techniques: Low-Rank Adaptation (LoRA) configuration choices, base-model quantisation (LLM.int8 and 4-bit NormalFloat (NF4)) and pruning (unstructured, semi-structured and structured). Our contributions are:

- **Reproduction of the main claims.** The in-context learning baselines reproduce within a few points of the reported values, and the supervised *ContextAgent* configuration outperforms them for all three base models, confirming the central claim (Section 6.1).
- **A paper–code discrepancy and its effect.** The paper reports a learning rate of 10^{-4}, whereas the released training configuration uses 5×10^{-5}. Both settings yield higher fine-tuned scores than reported, and the paper's setting yields the highest; for example, Llama-3.1-8B reaches a tool-calling F1 of 0.781 against the reported 0.777 (Table 2).
- **Robustness under efficiency constraints.** We quantify the cost–performance trade-off of LoRA rank and target modules, quantisation and pruning for the *ContextAgent* reasoner, measuring training and inference memory, latency and throughput alongside the original task metrics (Section 6.2).

The study is limited to *ContextAgent* as the framework and *ContextAgentBench* as the evaluation setting, and it covers the context-aware reasoner only; the perception stage (vision-language model and speech recognition) is outside the cost measurements.

2 Related Work

2.1 Proactive LLM Agents

Most LLM agents are reactive systems, where the model acts after receiving an explicit user prompt. ReAct (Yao et al., 2023) combines reasoning and action in an iterative process, which is relevant for tool use and multi-step decision making, but the agent is still given a task or observation to respond to. A proactive agent must additionally decide whether assistance should be provided at all.

Lu et al. (2024) frame proactivity as a prediction problem in which the model learns when proactive suggestions are likely to be accepted by users. Yang et al. (2025a) study proactivity in a deployed setting, where sensory context is gathered through on-demand perception and used together with LLM reasoning to provide proactive assistance on AR glasses. *ContextAgent* (Yang et al., 2025b) combines sensory context, persona information, proactive prediction and tool calling, and evaluates both whether the agent should act and how it should act. These systems primarily target proactive capability; their cost of operation is not the main subject of evaluation.

2.2 Efficient Model Adaptation and Compression

Parameter-efficient fine-tuning methods such as LoRA reduce training cost by freezing the base model and training a small set of adapter parameters (Hu et al., 2021). Quantised Low-Rank Adaptation (QLoRA) extends this approach by quantising the frozen model during training (Dettmers et al., 2023), and LLM.int8 provides 8-bit inference with outlier handling (Dettmers et al., 2022). Pruning removes parameters or structures from an existing model (Cheng et al., 2024; Sun et al., 2024; Fang et al., 2023), while Knowledge

Distillation (KD) trains a smaller student model to imitate a larger teacher (Hinton et al., 2015). Surveys report these as the most common approaches for reducing the cost of LLMs (Gun Il Kim, 2025; Pierre V. Dantas, 2025), but they are usually evaluated on reactive tasks. Whether they preserve the behaviour a proactive agent needs, namely calibrated proactive scores, a fixed structured output format and valid tool arguments, is the question this paper addresses for *ContextAgent*.

2.3 Reproducibility Studies

Independent reproduction of published machine learning results, as promoted by the ML Reproducibility Challenge and the reproducibility tracks of information retrieval venues, regularly reveals undocumented choices and discrepancies between papers and released code. Following the ACM terminology, our study is a *reproduction* (different team, same artefacts) of the *ContextAgentBench* results, extended with a *generalisation* to resource-constrained settings.

3 Background

This section introduces the proactive agent setting, the *ContextAgent* framework and the *ContextAgentBench* benchmark.

3.1 Proactive LLM Agents

A proactive LLM agent differs from a reactive agent in the decision problem it solves. A reactive agent receives an explicit instruction from the user and produces an output. A proactive agent instead uses available context to decide whether assistance is needed and may act without being directly prompted (Lu et al., 2024). A simple way to view such a system is as operating on a sequence of contextual states $c_1, c_2, \ldots, c_t$, where each c_t may include observations from the environment, user-related information, and the current system state.

At each configurable sampling step t, the agent computes $f(c_t) = (p_t, a_t)$, where p_t represents the estimated need for assistance and a_t is the planned action. If $p_t < \theta$, where θ is an adjustable threshold, the agent stays passive. If $p_t \geq \theta$ the agent begins assistance. In practice a_t may be a direct response, a tool call or a sequence of tool calls followed by a response.

This also helps explain why proactive agents have a different cost profile than reactive agents. A reactive system performs inference only when prompted, while a proactive system may need to evaluate context repeatedly even when the user is not requesting it. The total cost is therefore shaped not only by the complexity of a single inference step, but also by how often the decision process is triggered and by how much computation is needed to turn these observations into usable context.

3.2 ContextAgent

This general idea is made concrete in *ContextAgent* (Yang et al., 2025b), which combines sensory perceptions and persona context in order to predict the need for proactive assistance and call external tools when needed. The agent task is formalised as:

$$(T, PS, TC, R) = A(S, P) \tag{1}$$

where A is the agent, S denotes sensory perceptions and P denotes persona context. The outputs are thought traces T, a proactive score PS, a planned tool chain TC and a final response R. Proactive assistance is triggered only when $PS \geq \theta$.

This maps directly to the general framework $f(c_t) = (p_t, a_t)$ from Section 3.1, where $c_t = (S, P)$, $p_t = PS$, and $a_t = (TC, R)$.

The framework has two main parts: proactive-oriented context extraction and context-aware proactive reasoning. The first part is tasked with turning raw sensory input into a representation that is easier for the LLM to use. The second part then uses this representation together with persona context to predict whether assistance is needed and which tools should be used.

The sensory input S is viewed as multimodal and is described as including egocentric video, audio and smartphone notifications. From this input, the framework constructs a context representation $C = (C_V, C_A, N)$, where C_V is visual context extracted from video, C_A is audio context extracted from speech, and N denotes textual information from smartphone notifications that is incorporated directly into the final context representation.

For video, *ContextAgent* uses a vision language model with in-context learning to generate visual context C_V. For audio, it uses speech recognition to generate audio context C_A. Persona context P is also used, since the same sensory situation can imply different needs depending on a user's preferences, identity and past behaviour.

After extracting context, the framework applies a context-aware reasoner:

$$(T, PS, TC) = A_S(C, P) \tag{2}$$

where A_S is an LLM that takes sensory context C and persona context P as input and produces thought traces, a proactive score and a planned tool chain. The planned tool chain is a sequence of tool calls with arguments. A simple way to represent this is:

$$TC = \big((t_i, a_i)\big)_{i=1}^{m} \qquad t_i \in \mathcal{T} \tag{3}$$

where $\mathcal{T}$ is the set of available tools, t_i is the selected tool and a_i is the corresponding argument set.

The reasoning model is trained with supervised fine-tuning on a dataset $\mathcal{D}_{\text{SFT}} = \{(X_i, T_i, Y_i)\}_{i=1}^{n}$ where X_i contains the sensory context C_i and persona context P_i, T_i is the thought trace, and Y_i contains the proactive score PS_i and planned tool chain TC_i.

During inference, if the predicted score satisfies $PS \geq \theta$, the planned tools are then executed in sequence. The outputs are then combined with the sensory context, persona context and thought traces to generate the final response.

3.3 ContextAgentBench

ContextAgentBench is the benchmark used in the *ContextAgent* paper to evaluate context-aware proactive agents. Each sample contains seven parts:

$$(S, C, P, T, PS, TC, R) \tag{4}$$

where S is the sensory perception, C is the contextual summary, P is the persona context, T is the thought trace, PS is the proactive score, TC is the planned tool chain, and R is the final response. This means that the benchmark does not only ask if an agent should act. It also includes the context used for the decision, the reasoning trace, the planned use of tools and the final response.

The benchmark is thus a dataset

$$\mathcal{B} = \{(S_i, C_i, P_i, T_i, PS_i, TC_i, R_i)\}_{i=1}^{N} \tag{5}$$

with $N = 1000$. The original paper also introduces *ContextAgentBench-Lite*, with 300 human-verified samples paired with raw sensor data such as egocentric video and audio; we do not use it. The proactive score is defined on a five-point scale, with $PS_i \in \{1, 2, 3, 4, 5\}$, where 1 means that no proactivity is required and 5 means a high level of proactivity.

For non-proactive cases, where $PS_i \in \{1, 2\}$, both the planned tool chain and final response are set to $TC_i = \texttt{None}$ and $R_i = \texttt{None}$. For the proactive cases, the tool chain may contain several tool calls. If $\mathcal{T}$ denotes the set of tool types, then it can be written as:

$$TC_i \in \mathcal{T}^{\leq 5} \cup \{\texttt{None}\} \tag{6}$$

since the benchmark contains 20 tool types and each sample may involve up to five tools.

The benchmark is built in two stages. First, the paper creates 200 human-written seed examples from proactive and non-proactive situations in daily life. These samples include contextual summaries, persona information when needed, proactive scores, thought traces and planned tool chains for proactive cases. Each sample is cross reviewed for plausibility and format. Second, the benchmark is expanded through an automated diversification that generates additional samples with LLMs. Generation is conditioned either on the scenario or on the proactive score. The resulting samples are checked by annotators for rationality and a script to verify the data format and tool arguments.

The released benchmark comes with a fixed split of 600 training and 400 test samples, which we use throughout. Because it provides labels for proactive scores, tool chains and arguments, the original task setting can be reproduced before introducing measures of computational cost.

4 Methods

This section describes the reproduction protocol and the efficiency techniques applied to the *ContextAgent* reasoner.

4.1 Reproduction Protocol

We reproduce the main *ContextAgentBench* experiment of Yang et al. (2025b) (their Table 1) for the three base models reported there: `Llama-3.1-8B-Instruct`, `Qwen2.5-7B-Instruct` and `DeepSeek-R1-7B`. We use the released code, prompts, data split and evaluation scripts; deviations are listed in Section 5.3. We test the following claims:

- **C1** Supervised fine-tuning with thought traces and personas (*ContextAgent*) outperforms all in-context learning baselines on both proactive prediction and tool calling.
- **C2** Adding persona context and thought traces to in-context learning (ICL-All) improves over Vanilla ICL.
- **C3** The reported absolute scores can be obtained with the released artefacts.

All models are evaluated with the original metrics and evaluation code: Proactive Prediction Accuracy (Acc-P), Missed Detection rate (MD), False Detection rate (FD) and Root Mean Square Error (RMSE) for proactive prediction, and precision, recall, F1-score and Argument Accuracy (Acc-Args) for tool calling (Section 5.6).

4.2 Selected Efficiency Techniques

We select techniques that are widely used to make LLMs cheaper to train and run. Surveys identify quantisation, pruning, knowledge distillation and parameter-efficient fine-tuning as the most common approaches for reducing computational cost and memory usage while maintaining model performance (Gun Il Kim, 2025; Pierre V. Dantas, 2025). These techniques are well established in reactive settings; we assess whether their benefits carry over to the *ContextAgent* reasoner, which must produce calibrated proactive scores, a fixed structured output format and valid tool arguments. Knowledge distillation into 1–1.5B student models was also attempted; it is reported only briefly as a negative result in Section 7.3.

4.3 Low-Rank Adaptation (LoRA)

ContextAgent already fine-tunes its reasoner with LoRA (rank 8, all linear layers). We therefore do not compare LoRA against full fine-tuning, but study how the LoRA configuration (rank, target modules, learning rate) and base-model quantisation affect task performance and cost.

LoRA freezes the pre-trained weights and injects trainable rank-decomposition matrices into each targeted layer of the *Transformer* (Hu et al., 2021). For a pre-trained weight matrix $W_0 \in \mathbb{R}^{d \times k}$, the update is

constrained to a low-rank decomposition $W_0+\Delta W = W_0+BA$, where $B \in \mathbb{R}^{d\times r}$, $A \in \mathbb{R}^{r\times k}$ and $r \ll \min(d,k)$. The forward pass computes

$$h = W_0x + \Delta Wx = W_0x + BAx. \tag{7}$$

This reduces the number of trainable parameters and therefore the optimiser-state memory, while performing comparably to full fine-tuning on many tasks (Hu et al., 2021). The rank r and the set of targeted weight matrices are the main capacity choices.

4.3.1 Quantisation and QLoRA

QLoRA trains LoRA adapters on top of a quantised, frozen base model (Dettmers et al., 2023). Base-model quantisation compresses the frozen weights into lower-precision data types, reducing the memory required to load the model during both training and inference. Since only the adapters are trained, aggressive quantisation of the base weights does not directly affect their optimisation. We use two quantisation levels, each with 16-bit adapters: 8-bit LLM.int8 and 4-bit NF4.

4-bit NormalFloat (NF4). NF4 is a 4-bit data type designed for zero-mean, normally distributed weights: it maps weights to 4-bit bins with equal expected probability mass, minimising quantisation error under that distributional assumption (Dettmers et al., 2023). This allows 7–8B models to be fine-tuned under tight memory limits while maintaining performance close to 16-bit baselines.

8-bit LLM.int8. LLM.int8 stores weights in 8-bit precision and preserves task performance by isolating outlier features, which are processed in 16-bit precision, while the vast majority of matrix multiplications are performed in 8-bit (Dettmers et al., 2022). Compared to NF4, it trades smaller memory savings for higher numerical fidelity.

4.4 Pruning

Pruning removes parameters or computational structures that contribute little to predictive performance. Unlike LoRA, which adds low-rank updates alongside the frozen weights, pruning directly modifies the original network. Let $\boldsymbol{\theta}$ denote the parameters of a model and $\mathbf{m} \in \{0,1\}^{|\boldsymbol{\theta}|}$ a binary pruning mask. The pruned model is $f(x; \mathbf{m} \odot \boldsymbol{\theta})$, and the objective is to minimise performance degradation under a given sparsity constraint (Cheng et al., 2024). For LLMs, pruning can reduce memory and computation at inference time, which could enable proactive agents on constrained hardware. Pruning strategies are commonly divided into unstructured pruning, which removes individual parameters, and structured pruning, which removes entire parameter groups such as channels, neurons or attention heads.

4.4.1 Unstructured Pruning

Pruning performance depends on how well the importance of weights is estimated. Importance scores are computed using a calibration dataset that reflects the inputs seen during deployment. This data is used to collect statistics such as activation magnitudes, allowing data-aware pruning without full retraining. We take the calibration data from the *ContextAgentBench* training split so that it reflects the task distribution.

Unstructured pruning removes weights independently without enforcing any pattern, allowing the model to retain the most important parameters at a given sparsity level. As a result, it typically retains more accuracy than more constrained pruning methods at the same sparsity, but it does not reduce memory or latency unless sparse kernels are used.

Among data-aware methods, Pruning by **W**eights **and A**ctivations (WANDA) (Sun et al., 2024) is an effective one-shot pruning approach. It estimates the importance of each weight by combining its value with the activation statistics of its input feature.

Consider a linear layer with weight matrix $\mathbf{W} \in \mathbb{R}^{C_{\text{out}}\times C_{\text{in}}}$. Given a calibration dataset, the input activations are collected into a matrix $\mathbf{X} \in \mathbb{R}^{(N\times L)\times C_{\text{in}}}$, where N is the batch size and L is the sequence length. The importance score for each weight w_{ij} is defined as:

$$S_{ij} = |w_{ij}| \cdot \|\mathbf{X}_j\|_2, \tag{8}$$

where $\mathbf{X}_j$ is the j-th column of $\mathbf{X}$, representing the activation of the j-th input feature.

Weights with the lowest importance scores are removed. This approach extends magnitude-based pruning by also considering how often a feature is used. By aggregating activations across the calibration data, the method captures usage patterns that are important in real tasks.

To provide a baseline, WANDA is compared with standard magnitude pruning, which uses only the size of weights. WANDA typically performs better at higher sparsity levels, where magnitude pruning may remove weights that are still important during inference.

These importance scores are extended to the semi-structured setting by enforcing N:M sparsity constraints. In this setup, each weight matrix is divided into blocks of M parameters, and only the N most important weights are kept in each block.

This semi-structured design balances accuracy and hardware efficiency. Results for the 2:4 and 4:8 sparsity patterns are reported in Appendix C.

4.4.2 Structured Pruning

Torch-Pruning is employed for structured pruning (Fang et al., 2023), a DepGraph-based framework that removes structurally coupled parameter groups while preserving model consistency. Pruning is applied post-training to a pretrained model, targeting primarily the feed-forward Multilayer Perceptron (MLP) layers, while attention head pruning is disabled to preserve architectural stability.

Unlike unstructured pruning, structured pruning operates on groups of parameters that are interdependent across layers. The DepGraph framework explicitly models these dependencies and ensures that coupled parameters are pruned jointly, enabling consistent removal of neurons or hidden dimensions without breaking the computational graph. As a result, pruning is performed at the group level rather than on individual parameters.

To estimate group importance, two criteria are evaluated within the same pruning framework. The first, `GroupMagnitudeImportance`, ranks parameter groups by the aggregated L2 norm of their weights, where the L2 norm captures the group's overall magnitude. The second, `ActivationImportance`, uses activation statistics collected from a calibration dataset through forward passes, reflecting how frequently and strongly each group contributes to the model's outputs.

Equal pruning ratios are applied across MLP layers, while attention heads remain unpruned, allowing for the isolation of the impact of structured sparsity in feed-forward components. This choice is made based on preliminary experiments in which attention head pruning revealed severe degradation in model performance, even at low sparsity levels. Consequently, head pruning is disabled in the final configuration, and structured pruning is applied exclusively to feed-forward MLP layers.

4.4.3 Pruning Shortcomings and Recovery Phase

Pruning modifies the model's optimisation by removing parameters or structural components that contribute to learned representations. As a result, even importance-aware pruning strategies often introduce accuracy degradation, distribution shifts in intermediate activations, and reduced calibration, particularly at higher sparsity levels. These effects are more pronounced in structured pruning, where removing entire heads or hidden dimensions disrupts inter-layer dependencies. To mitigate these issues, a recovery phase is commonly applied after pruning (Cheng et al., 2024), consisting of Supervised Fine-Tuning (SFT) on task-specific data. This recovery step allows the model to adapt to the induced sparsity through LoRA-based fine-tuning, partially restoring performance while preserving the efficiency gains introduced by pruning. In our experiments, all pruned models underwent the same recovery procedure to ensure a fair comparison across pruning strategies and sparsity regimes.

5 Experimental Setup

5.1 Data and Configurations

All experiments use the released *ContextAgentBench* split of 600 training samples (`cab_train_sft`) and 400 test samples (`cab_test`) (Yang et al., 2025b). Each sample contains the following fields:

- *Context information:* visual, audio and smartphone-notification context extracted from wearable sensors.
- *Personas:* a description of the user in the specific scenario.
- *Thoughts:* the reference thought trace.
- *Proactive score:* the amount of proactivity needed, from 1 (none) to 5 (high).
- *Tools:* the tool chain, including arguments, that the agent should call.
- *Response:* the agent's final free-text response.

The combinations of these fields define the methods in Table 1, following the original paper. *Vanilla ICL* uses the context information only; *CoT* adds thought traces; *ICL-P* adds personas; and *ICL-All* adds both. *ContextAgent* is the supervised configuration: the model is fine-tuned with LoRA adapters on all linear layers using sensory context, thought traces and personas, which makes it the fine-tuned counterpart of *ICL-All*.

5.2 Implementation Details

All fine-tuning uses the LLaMA-Factory configuration released with *ContextAgent*, with a sequence cut-off of 2048 tokens, 5 epochs, a cosine learning-rate schedule with 10% warm-up, bfloat16 mixed precision, gradient checkpointing and an effective batch size of 8 (per-device batch size 2, 4 gradient-accumulation steps). The default LoRA configuration is rank $r = 8$, $\alpha = 2r$, all linear layers, and learning rate 5×10^{-5}, as in the released code. Experiments ran on a single NVIDIA L4 GPU with 24 GB of memory. The software environment used PyTorch 2.7.0, Transformers 4.52.1, PEFT 0.15.2, LLaMA-Factory 0.9.3.dev0, and bitsandbytes 0.45.1. Quantised runs used the bitsandbytes backend for 4-bit quantisation. Generation used top-p/top-k sampling with $p = 0.7$ and $k = 50$, temperature 0.95, one beam, and a maximum of 1024 new tokens. Following the original evaluation protocol of Yang et al. (2025b), which also evaluates each configuration from a single run on the fixed test split without reporting repeated seeds or variance,we evaluate most configurations from a single completed training run ($k = 1$). For the two configurations behind the reproduction claims (LoRA $r = 8$ with the released learning rate 5×10^{-5} and the paper's 10^{-4}), we additionally train seeds 1 and 2 and report the mean and standard deviation over three runs; the seed-to-seed standard deviation of tool-calling F1 is 0.005–0.015, smaller than the evaluation uncertainty of a single run. With 400 test samples, a single evaluation has a 95% bootstrap confidence interval of about ± 0.035 for the tool-calling F1-score and about ± 0.05 for Acc-Args; we test differences between configurations explicitly (Section 5.6) rather than interpreting differences of a few hundredths.

5.3 Deviations from the Original Setup

- **Learning rate discrepancy.** The ContextAgent paper reports an SFT learning rate of 10^{-4} (Section 5.1), whereas the released LLaMA-Factory training configuration files (`llama3_lora_sft.yaml`, `qwen_lora_sft.yaml`) specify 5×10^{-5}. Rather than assuming an error, we treat this as a paper–code discrepancy and evaluate both settings: we adopt the released configuration (5×10^{-5}) for our baseline reproduction and evaluate the paper's stated value (10^{-4}) in a separate learning-rate experiment (Table 2, Table 7). With the paper's value, all three models exceed the reported scores; with the released value, Llama and Qwen exceed them while DeepSeek falls slightly below. 10^{-4} improves over 5×10^{-5} for all three models.

- **Hardware and batch size.** The paper reports training on eight A6000 GPUs. The released configuration uses per-device batch size 1 with 8 gradient-accumulation steps; if it was run data-parallel on eight GPUs, the effective batch size was 64 rather than 8, corresponding to eight times fewer optimiser steps. We train on a single GPU with an effective batch size of 8. To test whether this explains the difference to the reported scores, we additionally train each model with an effective batch size of 64 (per-device batch size 1, 64 accumulation steps), which reproduces the optimiser-step count of eight-GPU data-parallel training (Table 3).
- **Fine-tuning details.** Our LoRA and learning-rate experiments add a LoRA dropout of 0.05 and gradient checkpointing, which are not set in the released configuration; the LoRA scaling ($\alpha = 2r$) and all other hyperparameters follow the released files. For DeepSeek-R1-7B we use LLaMA-Factory's `deepseek3` chat template instead of the released `deepseek` template. The quantised (QLoRA) runs use per-device batch size 2 with 4 accumulation steps; the effective batch size of 8 is unchanged.To check that these settings do not affect the results, we also trained each model twice with the exact released configuration. For DeepSeek, these runs are equivalent to ours within ± 0.03 on all metrics (F1-score difference -0.004, 95% CI $[-0.030, 0.023]$). For Llama, the released configuration scores slightly lower (-0.021, $[-0.042, 0.000]$), a difference at the edge of significance and far smaller than the effects discussed below. For Qwen, the two runs are equivalent within ± 0.03 in F1-score (difference 0.000, 95% CI $[-0.021, 0.021]$).
- **Random seeds.** The released configuration sets no seed, so LLaMA-Factory's default (42) applies. Our original runs used this default. For the two main learning rates (5×10^{-5} and 10^{-4}) we additionally train seeds 1 and 2 and report the mean and standard deviation over the three runs.
- **Configuration search.** The released split has no validation set. The LoRA sweeps in Section 6.2 are therefore evaluated on the test split and should be read as an oracle sensitivity analysis; the "best" configurations are optimistic estimates and are not used to support the reproduction claims, which rely only on the released and paper configurations.

the seeds item becomes true once the seed runs finish (in progress on AI-Lab)

5.4 Quantisation Settings

Quantised runs load the base model with bitsandbytes before injecting 16-bit adapters. The 8-bit runs use LLM.int8 (Dettmers et al., 2022); the 4-bit runs use NF4 with double quantisation (Dettmers et al., 2023). The trainable adapters are kept in bfloat16. All other parameters are identical to the corresponding 16-bit run.

5.5 Pruning Settings

Pruning is evaluated on `Llama-3.1-8B-Instruct`, the strongest model in our reproduction, at sparsity ratios of 10%, 30% and 50% for unstructured and structured pruning, and with 2:4 and 4:8 patterns for semi-structured pruning (Appendix C). WANDA and magnitude pruning are compared for unstructured and semi-structured sparsity, while structured pruning uses group magnitude and activation-based importance. Data-aware criteria use calibration samples from the training split with a fixed sequence length of 2048 tokens: 256 samples for WANDA and 512 for activation-based structured pruning (the defaults of the respective implementations).

Evaluations immediately after pruning showed severe degradation at moderate and high sparsity, so all pruned models undergo the same LoRA-based recovery fine-tuning before evaluation, using the default configuration for unstructured and semi-structured pruning and a learning rate of 2×10^{-5} for structured pruning. Merging the recovery adapters into the pruned weights (`merge_and_unload()`) adds the dense low-rank update BA to every adapted matrix and thereby fills the pruned entries: after merging, the WANDA models contain no zero weights (0.0% sparsity, against 10–50% before merging). We therefore record the pruning mask before merging and re-apply it afterwards, so that the evaluated models have the stated sparsity; Table 12

reports results with the re-applied mask; results without it are not reported, because those models are dense. Structured pruning removes entire channels, so its sparsity is preserved by merging. Pruned weights are stored in dense format, so unstructured and semi-structured sparsity is not exploited by the inference kernels.

5.6 Metrics

All configurations are evaluated on the 400 test samples with the original evaluation code.

Proactive prediction. Acc-P measures whether the predicted need for proactive assistance (proactive score above the threshold) matches the ground truth. The MD is the fraction of samples where assistance was needed but not predicted, and the FD is the fraction where assistance was predicted but not needed. RMSE measures the error of the predicted proactive score on the 1–5 scale.

Tool calling. Precision, recall and F1-score compare predicted and ground-truth tool names as sets. Acc-Args additionally requires the tool arguments to be correct: a sample with any incorrect argument counts as incorrect, and missed proactive actions are penalised (Yang et al., 2025b).

Statistical analysis. Because all configurations are evaluated on the same 400 test samples, we compare them with a paired bootstrap over test samples (10,000 resamples), recomputing each metric on every resample, and report the difference with its 95% confidence interval. Where several training seeds are available, each configuration's metric is averaged over its seeds within every resample. For claims of no difference we use the two one-sided tests (TOST) procedure with an equivalence margin of ± 0.03, chosen before the analysis as roughly the seed-to-seed spread plus evaluation noise; equivalence at $\alpha = 0.05$ holds if the 90% confidence interval lies inside the margin. To assess whether the ranking of methods reproduces, we compute Kendall's τ between our and the reported F1-scores.

Costs. Training cost is reported as duration and peak and average GPU memory. Inference cost is reported as peak and average GPU memory (GB), average, minimum and maximum batch latency (s) and throughput (samples/s), with a batch size of 1.

6 Results

We first report the reproduction of the original results (Section 6.1) and then the efficiency experiments (Section 6.2).

6.1 Reproduction of the Original Results

Table 1 reports all methods with the released configuration, and Table 2 compares the reproduced ICL-All and *ContextAgent* results with the values reported by Yang et al. (2025b).

Table 1: Reproduction on *ContextAgentBench* (400 test samples) with the released configuration (*ContextAgent*: LoRA $r = 8$, learning rate 5×10^{-5}; mean ± standard deviation over three training seeds).

		Proactive Predictions				Tool Calling			
Model	Method	Acc-P↑	MD↓	FD↓	RMSE↓	Precision↑	Recall↑	F1-score↑	Acc-Args↑
Llama-3.1-8B-Ins	Vanilla ICL	0.730	0.225	0.045	2.066	0.569	0.514	0.525	0.246
	CoT	0.713	0.242	0.045	2.007	0.568	0.503	0.519	0.259
	ICL-P	0.777	0.165	0.058	2.007	0.633	0.544	0.567	0.374
	ICL-All	0.755	0.212	**0.033**	1.935	0.602	0.545	0.558	0.294
	ContextAgent	**0.915±0.007**	**0.044±0.011**	0.041±0.006	**1.124±0.033**	**0.764±0.006**	**0.745±0.006**	**0.740±0.005**	**0.593±0.008**
DeepSeek-R1-7B	Vanilla ICL	0.627	0.315	0.058	2.711	0.470	0.445	0.451	0.129
	CoT	0.632	0.302	0.065	2.645	0.471	0.450	0.455	0.153
	ICL-P	0.710	0.212	0.077	2.387	0.514	0.467	0.479	0.152
	ICL-All	0.720	0.237	**0.043**	2.393	0.515	0.488	0.494	0.173
	ContextAgent	**0.855±0.019**	**0.056±0.008**	0.089±0.016	**1.431±0.084**	**0.613±0.013**	**0.608±0.019**	**0.596±0.015**	**0.365±0.008**
Qwen2.5-7B-Ins	Vanilla ICL	0.800	0.165	0.035	2.079	0.583	0.554	0.558	0.298
	CoT	0.782	0.193	**0.025**	2.095	0.563	0.530	0.538	0.249
	ICL-P	0.880	0.072	0.048	1.726	0.568	0.546	0.548	0.283
	ICL-All	0.865	0.095	0.040	1.741	0.631	0.570	0.583	0.370
	ContextAgent	**0.912±0.010**	**0.041±0.008**	0.048±0.004	**1.129±0.052**	**0.732±0.006**	**0.716±0.010**	**0.707±0.008**	**0.546±0.016**

Table 2: Reported (Yang et al., 2025b) versus reproduced results. *Code*: released configuration (learning rate 5×10^{-5}); *paper*: learning rate 10^{-4} as stated in the original paper. Both use LoRA $r = 8$ on all linear layers. ContextAgent (ours) rows report the mean ± standard deviation over three training seeds (42, 1, 2).

		Proactive Predictions				Tool Calling			
Model	Method	Acc-P↑	MD↓	FD↓	RMSE↓	Precision↑	Recall↑	F1-score↑	Acc-Args↑
Llama-3.1-8B-Ins	ICL-All (reported)	0.757	0.229	0.012	1.872	0.631	0.565	0.582	0.270
	ICL-All (ours)	0.755	0.212	0.033	1.935	0.602	0.545	0.558	0.294
	ContextAgent (reported)	0.874	0.030	0.095	1.408	0.660	0.627	0.626	0.448
	ContextAgent (ours, code)	0.915±0.007	0.044±0.011	0.041±0.006	1.124±0.033	0.764±0.006	0.745±0.006	0.740±0.005	0.593±0.008
	ContextAgent (ours, paper)	0.927±0.016	0.040±0.007	0.033±0.009	1.024±0.077	0.800±0.008	0.785±0.006	0.777±0.005	0.664±0.004
DeepSeek-R1-7B	ICL-All (reported)	0.704	0.268	0.027	2.540	0.545	0.510	0.518	0.103
	ICL-All (ours)	0.720	0.237	0.043	2.393	0.515	0.488	0.494	0.173
	ContextAgent (reported)	0.888	0.027	0.085	1.319	0.676	0.648	0.647	0.468
	ContextAgent (ours, code)	0.855±0.019	0.056±0.008	0.089±0.016	1.431±0.084	0.613±0.013	0.608±0.019	0.596±0.015	0.365±0.008
	ContextAgent (ours, paper)	0.888±0.010	0.048±0.009	0.063±0.011	1.238±0.031	0.698±0.008	0.699±0.011	0.685±0.006	0.502±0.003
Qwen2.5-7B-Ins	ICL-All (reported)	0.867	0.088	0.044	1.721	0.635	0.577	0.591	0.301
	ICL-All (ours)	0.865	0.095	0.040	1.741	0.631	0.570	0.583	0.370
	ContextAgent (reported)	0.894	0.013	0.091	1.264	0.672	0.644	0.645	0.459
	ContextAgent (ours, code)	0.912±0.010	0.041±0.008	0.048±0.004	1.129±0.052	0.732±0.006	0.716±0.010	0.707±0.008	0.546±0.016
	ContextAgent (ours, paper)	0.925±0.008	0.044±0.009	0.031±0.004	1.060±0.017	0.765±0.006	0.747±0.002	0.740±0.005	0.598±0.024

C1: fine-tuning outperforms in-context learning (reproduced). For all three models, *ContextAgent* achieves the highest Acc-P, the lowest MD and RMSE, and the best tool-calling scores of all methods (Table 1). The only exception is the FD, where some ICL baselines are lower, as in the original paper. For Llama and Qwen the margin over ICL-All is considerably larger than reported: tool-calling F1 improves by 0.182, 0.102 and 0.124 for Llama, DeepSeek and Qwen with the released configuration, against 0.044, 0.129 and 0.054 in the original paper.

C2: personas and thought traces help in-context learning (reproduced). ICL-All improves over Vanilla ICL in Acc-P, F1-score and Acc-Args for all three models. As in the original paper, adding thought traces alone (CoT) does not consistently help. The ranking of the five methods by tool-calling F1-score also agrees with the original paper: Kendall's τ between our and the reported values is 0.80 for each model and 0.82 over all 15 method–model pairs ($p < 0.001$).

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C2: personas and thought traces help in-context learning (reproduced). ICL-All improves over Vanilla ICL in Acc-P, F1-score and Acc-Args for all three models. As in the original paper, adding thought traces alone (CoT) does not consistently help. The ranking of the five methods by tool-calling F1-score also agrees with the original paper: Kendall's τ between our and the reported values is 0.80 for each model and 0.82 over all 15 method–model pairs ($p < 0.001$).

C3: reported absolute scores (partially reproduced). The in-context baselines reproduce closely: Acc-P is within 0.02 and F1-score within 0.025 of the reported ICL-All values. The fine-tuned models, however, differ substantially. With the released configuration, Llama and Qwen exceed the reported tool-calling F1 by 0.114 and 0.062, while DeepSeek falls 0.051 below it. With the learning rate stated in the paper, all three models exceed the reported values, by 0.151 (Llama), 0.038 (DeepSeek) and 0.095 (Qwen) in F1 and by 0.034–0.216 in Acc-Args. These are means over three training seeds; **??** summarises this comparison, and the spread over seeds (standard deviation of the F1-score at most 0.015) is small compared with these differences. The error profile also differs: the reported models have a low MD and a high FD (0.085–0.095), whereas our Llama and Qwen models are balanced (MD 0.040–0.044, FD 0.031–0.048); only DeepSeek at the released learning rate has a similarly high FD (0.089)..

To test whether eight-GPU data-parallel training explains the gap to the reported scores, we trained each model with an effective batch size of 64 (≈ 50 optimiser steps, against ≈ 375 at batch size 8; Section 5.3 and Table 3). For Llama-3.1-8B-Instruct, batch size 64 with the paper's learning rate (10^{-4}) reproduces the reported tool-calling F1 closely (0.632 versus 0.626 reported; Acc-Args 0.409 versus 0.448). For DeepSeek-R1-7B and Qwen2.5-7B-Instruct, however, batch size 64 lowers tool-calling F1 well below the reported values (0.409 and 0.540 at 10^{-4}, against 0.647 and 0.645 reported); their reported scores instead lie between our batch-64 and batch-8 results (DeepSeek: between our batch-8 runs at 5×10^{-5} and 10^{-4}, 0.596 and 0.685; Qwen: between batch 64 at 10^{-4}, 0.540, and batch 8 at 5×10^{-5}, 0.707). Eight-GPU data-parallel training is therefore a plausible explanation for the reported Llama results, but not for the other two models. In either case, the qualitative conclusions of the original paper hold. At batch size 8, the released code yields a stronger *ContextAgent* than reported for Llama and Qwen, and for all three models with the paper's learning rate.

An analysis of the raw outputs shows why DeepSeek fails with an effective batch size of 64. With about 50 optimiser steps at the released learning rate (5×10^{-5}), it never adopts the trained output format: none of its 400 outputs contains the required proactive-score and tool-calling fields; 72% answer in the free-form style of the base model and 28% never close the reasoning trace. At 10^{-4}, the format is largely learned (96% of outputs are parseable), but the decisions remain poor: false alarms (FD) rise from 6% to 18%, 10% of the outputs contain missing or malformed tool calls (batch size 8: 1%), and only 2% of all samples receive exactly the correct tool set (batch size 8: 15%). With 375 optimiser steps at batch size 8, these failures are rare. Llama, in contrast, learns the output format even at batch size 64 (at most 3% unparseable outputs); its lower scores come from less accurate tool selection (36–38% wrong or incomplete tool names). Qwen shows the same failure as DeepSeek in a milder form: at batch size 64 and 5×10^{-5}, 48% of its outputs contain no proactive score (batch size 8: 0%), which lowers its tool-calling F1 to 0.501. At 10^{-4} it learns the format (all outputs parseable), but its decisions remain worse than at batch size 8: false alarms rise from 3% to 8%, missed detections from 4% to 8%, and only 4% of the samples receive exactly the correct tool set (batch size 8: 14%). With about 50 optimiser steps, the released learning rate is therefore too low for two of the three models to learn the output format reliably, and even at 10^{-4} the decisions of DeepSeek and Qwen remain clearly worse than with 375 steps; DeepSeek, whose base model produces long free-form reasoning, is affected most.

Figure fig:lr: regenerate with the seed means (scripts/make_figures.py) before it goes in.

Table 3: Effect of effective batch size 64 (≈ 50 optimiser steps, matching eight-GPU data-parallel training) versus batch size 8 (≈ 375 steps) and the values reported by Yang et al. (2025b). Batch-64 rows are single runs; batch-8 rows are the mean over three seeds (Table 2). †No output contains the required proactive score; the evaluation then treats every sample as "no assistance needed", so these scores equal those of a model that never acts (cf. structured magnitude pruning, Table 12).

		Proactive Predictions				Tool Calling			
Model	**Setting**	**Acc-P↑**	**MD↓**	**FD↓**	**RMSE↓**	**Precision↑**	**Recall↑**	**F1-score↑**	**Acc-Args↑**
Llama-3.1-8B-Ins	Reported	0.874	0.030	0.095	1.408	0.660	0.627	0.626	0.448
	Batch 64, 5×10^{-5}	0.885	0.055	0.060	1.353	0.636	0.593	0.591	0.263
	Batch 64, 10^{-4}	0.850	0.087	0.062	1.400	0.648	0.647	0.632	0.409
	Batch 8, 10^{-4} (ours)	0.927	0.040	0.033	1.024	0.800	0.785	0.777	0.664
DeepSeek-R1-7B	Reported	0.888	0.027	0.085	1.319	0.676	0.648	0.647	0.468
	Batch 64, 5×10^{-5}†	0.470	0.530	0.000	3.407	0.468	0.468	0.468	0.000
	Batch 64, 10^{-4}	0.750	0.068	0.182	1.933	0.419	0.439	0.409	0.091
	Batch 8, 10^{-4} (ours)	0.888	0.048	0.063	1.238	0.698	0.699	0.685	0.502
Qwen2.5-7B-Ins	Reported	0.894	0.013	0.091	1.264	0.672	0.644	0.645	0.459
	Batch 64, 5×10^{-5}	0.655	0.285	0.060	3.013	0.535	0.494	0.501	0.222
	Batch 64, 10^{-4}	0.840	0.078	0.083	1.404	0.568	0.543	0.540	0.284
	Batch 8, 10^{-4} (ours)	0.925	0.044	0.031	1.060	0.765	0.747	0.740	0.598

Cost of the reproduced models. Table 14 in Appendix B reports the training cost of the reproduced *ContextAgent* models: all three peak at about 21 GB of GPU memory and train in 45–58 minutes. Table 4 reports their inference cost, which serves as the reference for the efficiency experiments.

Table 4: Inference cost of the reproduced ContextAgent models (16-bit, released configuration). Measured on the runs with the exact released configuration (Section 5.3).

		Costs					
Method	Model	GPU Peak (GB) ↓	GPU Avg (GB) ↓	Avg Batch (s) ↓	Min Batch (s) ↓	Max Batch (s) ↓	Avg Samples/s ↑
ContextAgent	Llama-3.1-8B-Ins	15.6	15.6	9.0	4.0	21.7	0.112
	DeepSeek-R1-7B	14.8	14.8	8.7	2.4	23.1	0.115
	Qwen2.5-7B-Ins	14.8	14.8	8.3	1.7	22.6	0.121

The three models need 14.8–15.6 GB at inference and process one sample in 8.3–9.0 s on average.

6.2 Efficiency under Resource Constraints

Tables 4 and 5: fill in the DeepSeek rows ($r = 64$; attention-only; MLP-only) when the re-evaluations finish, and add the DeepSeek sentences back to both paragraphs.

All experiments in this section use the *ContextAgent* configuration with thought traces and personas. Unless stated otherwise, the LoRA configuration is the released default: rank $r = 8$, all linear layers, learning rate 5×10^{-5}. Because all sweeps are evaluated on the test split (Section 5.3), they are a sensitivity analysis rather than a model selection procedure.

6.2.1 LoRA Configuration

Table 5: Effect of the LoRA rank r (learning rate 5×10^{-5}, all linear layers; $r = 8$ is the released default). All rows are single runs (seed 42); the $r = 8$ row is the seed-42 run of Table 1.

		Proactive Predictions				Tool Calling			
Model	Rank	Acc-P↑	MD↓	FD↓	RMSE↓	Precision↑	Recall↑	F1-score↑	Acc-Args↑
Llama-3.1-8B-Ins	8	0.917	0.045	0.037	1.129	0.762	0.739	0.735	0.595
	16	**0.938**	**0.030**	**0.033**	1.033	**0.803**	**0.795**	0.782	0.658
	32	0.935	0.033	**0.033**	1.004	0.801	0.784	0.777	0.683
	64	0.935	0.033	**0.033**	**0.937**	0.802	0.793	**0.783**	**0.685**
DeepSeek-R1-7B	8	0.873	0.048	0.080	1.365	0.625	0.622	0.609	0.368
	16	0.880	0.060	0.060	1.295	0.657	0.661	0.646	0.433
	32	**0.897**	**0.045**	**0.058**	**1.278**	**0.694**	**0.697**	**0.678**	**0.490**
	64	–	–	–	–	–	–	–	–
Qwen2.5-7B-Ins	8	0.915	0.035	0.050	1.137	0.734	0.719	0.708	0.551
	16	0.922	0.037	0.040	1.075	0.774	0.742	0.739	0.618
	32	**0.943**	0.033	**0.025**	**0.927**	**0.798**	**0.782**	**0.770**	0.631
	64	0.935	**0.030**	0.035	0.987	0.795	0.771	0.769	**0.649**

Table 5 presents the effect of LoRA rank on task performance across all three models, with all other hyperparameters fixed to their baseline values. For `Llama-3.1-8B-Instruct`, the F1-score rises from 0.735 at $r = 8$ to 0.782 at $r = 16$ and then plateaus (0.777 at $r = 32$, 0.783 at $r = 64$). `Qwen2.5-7B-Instruct` improves up to $r = 32$, with F1-scores of 0.708, 0.739, 0.770 and 0.769. `DeepSeek-R1-7B` improves at every rank, from 0.609 at $r = 8$ to 0.678 at $r = 32$. Differences between the higher ranks for Llama and Qwen are within run-to-run uncertainty.

Table 6: LoRA target modules ($r = 8$, learning rate 5×10^{-5}).

		Proactive Predictions				Tool Calling			
Model	Target modules	Acc-P↑	MD↓	FD↓	RMSE↓	Precision↑	Recall↑	F1-score↑	Acc-Args↑
Llama-3.1-8B-Ins	All linear	**0.917**	0.045	**0.037**	**1.129**	**0.762**	**0.739**	**0.735**	**0.595**
	Attention only	0.890	0.065	0.045	1.262	0.723	0.707	0.699	0.512
	MLP only	0.905	**0.037**	0.058	1.224	0.731	0.714	0.706	0.556
DeepSeek-R1-7B	All linear	0.873	0.048	0.080	1.365	0.625	0.622	0.609	0.368
	Attention only	–	–	–	–	–	–	–	–
	MLP only	–	–	–	–	–	–	–	–
Qwen2.5-7B-Ins	All linear	**0.915**	**0.035**	0.050	1.137	**0.734**	**0.719**	0.708	0.551
	Attention only	0.877	0.062	0.060	1.312	0.643	0.628	0.620	0.412
	MLP only	**0.915**	0.048	**0.037**	**1.124**	0.732	0.715	**0.709**	**0.562**

Table 6 reports the effect of restricting LoRA adapters to specific architectural components, evaluated at the baseline rank and learning rate. For `Llama-3.1-8B-Instruct`, adapting all linear layers gives the best results (F1-score 0.735), and adapting only the attention projections gives the worst (0.699). For `Qwen2.5-7B-Instruct`, adapting only the MLP layers is as good as adapting all linear layers (0.709 versus 0.708), while attention-only adaptation is clearly worse (0.620).

Table 7: Learning rate (LoRA $r = 8$, all linear layers). Scores recomputed from the released prediction files. The 5×10^{-5} and 10^{-4} rows show the mean ± standard deviation over three training seeds (42, 1, 2); the 10^{-5} and 2×10^{-4} rows are single runs.

		Proactive Predictions				Tool Calling			
Model	LR	Acc-P↑	MD↓	FD↓	RMSE↓	Precision↑	Recall↑	F1-score↑	Acc-Args↑
Llama-3.1-8B-Ins	1.0×10^{-5}	0.885	**0.035**	0.080	1.253	0.668	0.638	0.634	0.415
	5.0×10^{-5} (code)	0.915±0.007	0.044±0.011	0.041±0.006	1.124±0.033	0.764±0.006	0.745±0.006	0.740±0.005	0.593±0.008
	1.0×10^{-4} (paper)	0.927±0.016	0.040±0.007	0.033±0.009	1.024±0.077	0.800±0.008	0.785±0.006	0.777±0.005	0.664±0.004
	2.0×10^{-4}	**0.930**	0.040	**0.030**	**0.999**	**0.805**	**0.796**	**0.786**	**0.685**
DeepSeek-R1-7B	1.0×10^{-5}	0.868	0.058	0.075	1.367	0.621	0.598	0.598	0.376
	5.0×10^{-5} (code)	0.855±0.019	0.056±0.008	0.089±0.016	1.431±0.084	0.613±0.013	0.608±0.019	0.596±0.015	0.365±0.008
	1.0×10^{-4} (paper)	**0.888±0.010**	**0.048±0.009**	**0.063±0.011**	**1.238±0.031**	0.698±0.008	0.699±0.011	0.685±0.006	0.502±0.003
	2.0×10^{-4}	0.882	0.052	0.065	1.273	**0.720**	**0.721**	**0.704**	**0.527**
Qwen2.5-7B-Ins	1.0×10^{-5}	0.825	0.062	0.113	1.564	0.580	0.525	0.535	0.337
	5.0×10^{-5} (code)	0.912±0.010	0.041±0.008	0.048±0.004	1.129±0.052	0.732±0.006	0.716±0.010	0.707±0.008	0.546±0.016
	1.0×10^{-4} (paper)	0.925±0.008	0.044±0.009	**0.031±0.004**	1.060±0.017	0.765±0.006	0.747±0.002	0.740±0.005	0.598±0.024
	2.0×10^{-4}	**0.932**	**0.035**	0.033	**0.955**	**0.805**	**0.784**	**0.779**	**0.660**

Table 7 compares four learning rates: 10^{-5}, the released 5×10^{-5}, the paper's 10^{-4} and 2×10^{-4}. Above 5×10^{-5}, tool-calling performance increases with the learning rate for all three models. Moving from the released 5×10^{-5} to the paper's 10^{-4} raises the F1-score from 0.740 to 0.777 (Llama), 0.596 to 0.685 (DeepSeek) and 0.707 to 0.740 (Qwen), averaged over three seeds; all three differences are significant (paired bootstrap: +0.037, +0.089 and +0.033, with 95% confidence intervals excluding zero), and the seed standard deviation of the F1-score is at most 0.015. At 2×10^{-4}, all three models improve further (Llama 0.786, DeepSeek 0.704, Qwen 0.779), although the gain over 10^{-4} is small for Llama (0.009). 10^{-5} is clearly worse for Llama and Qwen (0.634 and 0.535), whereas for DeepSeek it is on par with the released value (0.598 versus 0.596). The released value is therefore not anomalous: it lies on the lower side of an increasing trend. This is consistent with the models being undertrained at the released setting, given only 600 training samples (Section 5.3). Since 2×10^{-4} is the best tested value for all three models, we cannot exclude that larger learning rates perform better still.

6.2.2 Quantisation

Table 8: Task performance under base-model quantisation (LoRA $r = 8$, learning rate 5×10^{-5}, all linear layers). All rows are single runs (seed 42); the 16-bit row is the seed-42 run of Table 1.

		Proactive Predictions				Tool Calling			
Model	Q-Bit	Acc-P↑	MD↓	FD↓	RMSE↓	Precision↑	Recall↑	F1-score↑	Acc-Args↑
Llama-3.1-8B-Ins	16-bit	0.917	0.045	0.037	1.129	0.762	0.739	0.735	0.595
	8-bit	0.912	0.055	0.033	1.150	0.775	0.741	0.742	0.608
	4-bit	0.892	0.037	0.070	1.256	0.736	0.712	0.708	0.577
DeepSeek-R1-7B	16-bit	0.873	0.048	0.080	1.365	0.625	0.622	0.609	0.368
	8-bit	0.865	0.065	0.070	1.414	0.631	0.631	0.615	0.373
	4-bit	0.843	0.060	0.098	1.476	0.619	0.600	0.596	0.385
Qwen2.5-7B-Ins	16-bit	0.915	0.035	0.050	1.137	0.734	0.719	0.708	0.551
	8-bit	0.915	0.050	0.035	1.161	0.753	0.722	0.720	0.542
	4-bit	0.863	0.090	0.048	1.620	0.696	0.693	0.680	0.498

Table 8 compares 16-bit LoRA, 8-bit LLM.int8 and 4-bit NF4 QLoRA, with all other settings at the released default. 8-bit quantisation does not measurably reduce task performance: the F1-score changes by +0.007 (Llama), +0.006 (DeepSeek) and +0.012 (Qwen) relative to 16-bit, and none of these differences are significant (all 95% confidence intervals include zero). 4-bit NF4 lowers the F1-score by 0.013–0.028 (Llama 0.735 to 0.708, DeepSeek 0.609 to 0.596, Qwen 0.708 to 0.680); these differences are also not significant individually. The only significant effect is a lower Acc-P for 4-bit Qwen (-0.052, 95% CI $[-0.090, -0.015]$). With single runs, the evaluation is not precise enough to establish equivalence within ± 0.03 (TOST), so we report these results as no detectable difference rather than as equivalence. These results agree with what is known for QLoRA on other tasks (Dettmers et al., 2023): base-model quantisation retains most of the fine-tuned performance, and we include them as a supporting cost–performance reference for the reproduced models rather than as a new finding.

The training resource requirements corresponding to these configurations are reported in Table 15 in Appendix B. For training, 4-bit quantisation reduces peak GPU memory by 47% for Llama (21.10 to 11.28 GB), but only by 25% for Qwen (21.37 to 15.95 GB) and 10% for DeepSeek (21.12 to 18.91 GB). Quantised training is also slower, by 9–29% at 4-bit and 23–28% at 8-bit.

Table 9: Inference cost under base-model quantisation (configuration as in Table 8). The 16-bit rows repeat Table 4.

		Costs					
Model	Q-Bit	GPU Peak (GB) ↓	GPU Avg (GB) ↓	Avg Batch (s) ↓	Min Batch (s) ↓	Max Batch (s) ↓	Avg Samples/s ↑
LLaMA-3.1-8B-Ins	16-bit	15.6	15.6	9.0	4.0	21.7	0.112
	8-bit	9.3	9.3	17.4	7.1	45.8	0.057
	4-bit	8.2	8.1	11.4	4.9	25.2	0.088
DeepSeek-R1-7B	16-bit	14.8	14.8	8.7	2.4	23.1	0.115
	8-bit	11	9.9	18.2	6.8	55	0.055
	4-bit	7.7	7.7	10.2	4.4	25.3	0.0976
Qwen2.5-7B-Ins	16-bit	14.8	14.8	8.3	1.7	22.6	0.121
	8-bit	9.6	9.2	18.5	3.5	45.6	0.054
	4-bit	7.7	7.7	11.8	0.7	81.2	0.085

At inference (Table 9), peak GPU memory decreases with the bit width for all three models; for Llama it falls from 15.6 GB at 16-bit to 9.3 GB at 8-bit and 8.2 GB at 4-bit (40% and 47% reductions). Latency does not

follow the same ordering. With the bitsandbytes kernels used here, LLM.int8 roughly doubles the average time per batch compared to 16-bit, while 4-bit NF4 is 17–42% slower than 16-bit but clearly faster than 8-bit.

6.2.3 Combined Configuration

Table 10: Best configuration per model found on the test split (optimistic; see Section 5.3), at 16-bit and 4-bit.

		Proactive Predictions				Tool Calling			
Model	Config	Acc-P↑	MD↓	FD↓	RMSE↓	Precision↑	Recall↑	F1-score↑	Acc-Args↑
Llama-3.1-8B-Ins	$r = 32, lr = 1.0 \times 10^{-4}$, all, 16-bit	0.925	**0.025**	0.050	1.012	0.786	0.764	0.760	0.666
	$r = 32, lr = 1.0 \times 10^{-4}$, all, 4-bit	**0.930**	0.043	**0.028**	**0.987**	**0.810**	**0.800**	**0.789**	**0.676**
DeepSeek-R1-7B	$r = 64, lr = 1.0 \times 10^{-4}$, all, 16-bit	**0.910**	**0.043**	**0.048**	**1.139**	**0.738**	**0.739**	**0.723**	0.530
	$r = 64, lr = 1.0 \times 10^{-4}$, all, 4-bit	0.887	0.055	0.058	1.289	0.721	0.728	0.710	**0.538**
Qwen2.5-7B-Ins	$r = 32, lr = 1.0 \times 10^{-4}$, all, 16-bit	0.925	**0.033**	0.043	1.103	**0.789**	**0.772**	**0.767**	**0.656**
	$r = 32, lr = 1.0 \times 10^{-4}$, all, 4-bit	**0.927**	0.045	**0.028**	**1.057**	0.782	0.770	0.765	**0.656**

Table 10 combines the best settings found above for each model. For Llama and Qwen this is $r = 32$, learning rate 10^{-4} and all linear layers; for DeepSeek it is $r = 64$, learning rate 10^{-4} and all linear layers, the best DeepSeek configuration in our sweeps. For Llama, the combined configuration does not improve over the paper's configuration ($r = 8$, 10^{-4}; F1-score 0.760 versus 0.781), so the improvement over the released default comes from the learning rate alone. For Qwen, the higher rank adds about 0.02 (0.767 versus 0.745). For DeepSeek, the combined configuration reaches 0.723 against 0.689. The 4-bit version of the combined configuration scores 0.789 for Llama (16-bit: 0.760), 0.710 for DeepSeek (16-bit: 0.723) and 0.765 for Qwen (16-bit: 0.767); none of these differences is significant (Llama +0.029, 95% CI $[-0.002, 0.061]$; DeepSeek -0.013, $[-0.044, 0.019]$; Qwen -0.002, $[-0.038, 0.034]$). 4-bit models with a suitable configuration therefore outperform the released 16-bit configuration (0.735, 0.609 and 0.708) at about half the inference memory.

Training costs for these configurations are in Table 16 (Appendix B). At 4-bit, peak training memory falls from 21.63 to 12.24 GB for Llama and from 21.91 to 15.26 GB for Qwen, with training time increasing by at most 10%.

Add DeepSeek to this sentence once the 16-bit cost re-measurement finishes (4-bit: 3402.6 s, 11.54 GB peak).

Table 11: Inference cost of the combined configurations.

		Costs					
Model	Config	GPU Peak (GB) ↓	GPU Avg (GB) ↓	Avg Batch (s) ↓	Min Batch (s) ↓	Max Batch (s) ↓	Avg Samples/s ↑
Llama-3.1-8B-Ins	$r = 32, lr = 1.0 \times 10^{-4}$, all, 16-bit	15.6	15.6	**9.1**	**4.2**	**21.7**	**0.109**
	$r = 32, lr = 1.0 \times 10^{-4}$, all, 4-bit	**8.3**	**8.3**	13.9	5.5	33.9	0.072
DeepSeek-R1-7B	$r = 64, lr = 1.0 \times 10^{-4}$, all, 16-bit	–	–	–	–	–	–
	$r = 64, lr = 1.0 \times 10^{-4}$, all, 4-bit	7.8	7.8	8.6	0.5	18.8	0.116
Qwen2.5-7B-Ins	$r = 32, lr = 1.0 \times 10^{-4}$, all, 16-bit	14.8	14.8	**8.5**	**3.5**	**19.5**	**0.118**
	$r = 32, lr = 1.0 \times 10^{-4}$, all, 4-bit	**7.7**	**7.7**	11.3	4.4	29.2	0.089

At inference (Table 11), 4-bit quantisation reduces peak GPU memory by 47–48% for Llama and Qwen. For Llama and Qwen this comes with a 53% and 33% increase in average batch time.

Table 10: fill in the DeepSeek 16-bit row (cost re-run in progress) and add the DeepSeek sentence (4-bit: 7.8 GB, 8.6 s per sample); bold the better value per column for DeepSeek.

6.2.4 Pruning

Pruning experiments use `Llama-3.1-8B-Instruct` with the released configuration; all results are after LoRA-based recovery fine-tuning. The dense reference is the *ContextAgent* row of Table 1 (F1-score 0.735, Acc-Args 0.595).

Table 12: Unstructured and structured pruning of `Llama-3.1-8B-Instruct` after recovery fine-tuning. For unstructured pruning, the binary pruning mask is re-applied after merging the recovery adapter, ensuring the evaluated weights have the exact stated sparsity; rows with three evaluations report the mean. Dense reference: F1-score 0.735, Acc-Args 0.595 (Table 1).

			Proactive Predictions				Tool Calling			
Structure	Pruning	%	Acc-P↑	MD↓	FD↓	RMSE↓	Precision↑	Recall↑	F1-score↑	Acc-Args↑
Unstructured	Wanda	10	0.897	0.033	0.070	1.188	0.752	**0.710**	**0.715**	0.598
		30	**0.920**	0.048	**0.033**	**1.108**	**0.764**	0.692	0.708	**0.603**
		50	0.886	0.067	0.048	1.276	0.693	0.618	0.634	0.459
	Magnitude	10	0.915	0.043	0.043	1.134	0.740	0.699	0.705	0.577
		30	0.908	**0.030**	0.063	1.180	0.727	0.658	0.673	0.577
		50	0.515	0.480	0.005	4.629	0.449	0.445	0.446	0.021
Structured	Activation	10	**0.870**	**0.083**	**0.048**	**1.371**	**0.652**	**0.651**	**0.637**	**0.410**
		30	0.718	0.172	0.110	1.944	0.493	0.490	0.481	0.236
		50	0.522	0.315	0.163	2.516	0.315	0.309	0.310	0.047
	Magnitude	10	0.470	0.530	0.000	3.407	0.468	0.468	0.468	0.000
		30	0.470	0.530	0.000	3.407	0.468	0.468	0.468	0.000
		50	0.470	0.530	0.000	3.407	0.468	0.468	0.468	0.000

Table 12 shows that unstructured pruning preserves performance much better than structured pruning. With the binary mask re-applied after merging the recovery adapter, WANDA preserves performance well at 10% and 30% sparsity: the F1-score remains at 0.715 and 0.708 (dense reference: 0.735), and Acc-Args is maintained at 0.598 and 0.603 (dense: 0.595). At 50% sparsity, however, enforcing strict zeros degrades performance noticeably, with the F1-score dropping by 0.10 to 0.634 and Acc-Args to 0.459. Magnitude pruning, which ignores activations, degrades faster. At 10% sparsity it is still close to the dense model (F1-score 0.705; difference -0.030, 95% CI $[-0.063, 0.002]$), but at 30% it already loses 0.06 (0.673, CI $[-0.100, -0.024]$), and at 50% the model largely loses the output format: 90% of its outputs contain no proactive score, so Acc-P falls to 0.515, MD rises to 0.480 and Acc-Args to 0.021. At the same 50% sparsity, WANDA keeps an F1-score of 0.634, which confirms that activation-aware importance matters at high sparsity (**?**).

Structured activation-based pruning loses 0.10 in F1-score already at 10% (0.637) and collapses at 50% (0.310). Structured magnitude pruning yields identical results at all three ratios, with MD = 0.530 and FD = 0.000: the model never predicts that assistance is needed. Its Acc-P and F1-score of 0.468 therefore correspond to the share of non-proactive samples, whose empty tool set is trivially matched. This is a degenerate solution rather than a gradual degradation.

Training costs (Table 17, Appendix B) show that unstructured pruning does not reduce recovery training time or memory, whereas 50% structured pruning reduces training time by about 48% and peak memory by 43% compared to 10% structured pruning.

Table 13: Inference cost after pruning and recovery.

Structure	Method	%	Costs					
			GPU Peak (GB) ↓	GPU Avg (GB) ↓	Avg Batch (s) ↓	Min Batch (s) ↓	Max Batch (s) ↓	Avg Samples/s ↑
Unstructured	Wanda	10	15.6	15.6	8.7	3.8	19.3	0.1154
		30	15.6	15.6	8.1	3.9	20.1	0.1233
		50	15.7	15.7	8.2	3.9	68.0	0.1227
	Magnitude	10	15.6	15.6	8.7	3.8	23.5	0.1148
		30	15.6	15.6	8.1	3.9	17.1	0.1227
		50	15.7	15.7	10.2	2.9	68.9	0.0981
Structured	Activation	10	13.2	13.2	8.2	3.7	17.8	0.1220
		30	8.9	8.9	5.4	2.3	13.3	0.1850
		50	5.7	5.6	5.3	1.5	32.1	0.1883
	Magnitude	10	13.3	13.3	34.8	4.6	62.0	0.0287
		30	9.0	9.0	43.7	42.6	47.6	0.0229
		50	5.7	5.6	31.4	28.2	41.4	0.0318

At inference (Table 13), unstructured pruning leaves memory and latency unchanged because the pruned weights are stored and multiplied densely. Structured magnitude pruning is 3.5–5 times *slower* than the dense model despite its smaller size. This slowdown coincides with degenerate generation: for the 10%, 30% and 50% settings, none of the 400 outputs contains a proactive score; the outputs consist of repeated fragments of quotes, braces and tool-schema words. Re-tokenising the saved outputs gives on average 463, 860 and 969 tokens per sample, against 132 for the dense model; for degenerate text this is a lower bound, because runs of whitespace and punctuation merge into fewer tokens than were generated. Calibrating against the per-sample latencies of the activation-pruned model of the same size, whose latency grows linearly with output length ($r \geq 0.999$), shows that all 400 samples at 30% and most samples at 50% (implied mean length 1,024 tokens) run until the limit of 1,024 new tokens, as do about one third (130) at 10%. The slowdown therefore comes from generating up to eight times as many tokens per sample, not from slower computation per token. The dense model and the activation-pruned models stay far below the limit (on average 127–168 tokens; only 15 of the 400 samples at 50% activation pruning reach it).

Optional: add the token-count script to the release (`scripts/count_output_tokens.py`) so the numbers in this paragraph can be reproduced from the logs.

7 Discussion

7.1 What Reproduces and What Does Not

The qualitative claims of *ContextAgent* hold: fine-tuning with persona context and thought traces outperforms in-context learning for all three base models (C1), and personas plus thought traces improve in-context learning (C2). The in-context baselines also reproduce numerically. The fine-tuned results do not: with the released code, two of three models score clearly higher than reported, and with the learning rate stated in the paper all three do (C3).

Two under-specified details make this difference hard to attribute. First, the paper and the released configuration disagree on the learning rate (10^{-4} versus 5×10^{-5}), and the choice between these two values alone changes tool-calling F1 by 0.05–0.08 for the same model (Table 7). Second, the paper reports eight GPUs, but not whether training was data-parallel or what the resulting effective batch size was. With only 600 training samples, an eight-fold difference in batch size changes the number of optimiser steps from about 375 to about 50, which may leave the original models undertrained; this is consistent with both the higher scores we obtain and the different error profile (MD versus FD) of the reported models. For future users of *ContextAgentBench*, we recommend reporting the effective batch size and number of optimiser steps, and treating the learning rate as a tuned hyperparameter selected on a held-out part of the training split.

A practical consequence is that the efficiency results below are measured against a stronger baseline than the paper reports: an efficiency technique that "preserves the reported performance" may still lose a substantial part of the performance the released code can reach.

C3 and Section 7.1: replace "We could not verify this with the released material" with the batch-64 result; update 0.100 and 0.04–0.08 from the seed means.

7.2 Efficiency of the Proactive Reasoner

LoRA configuration. Since *ContextAgent* already uses LoRA, the relevant question is which configuration is sufficient. For Llama, rank 8 on all linear layers is enough once the learning rate is adequate; a higher rank adds nothing at 10^{-4}. For Qwen, a higher rank still helps slightly (about 0.02 F1-score at $r = 32$ and 10^{-4}; Table 10). DeepSeek-R1-7B benefits most from a higher rank: at 10^{-4}, its best configuration uses $r = 64$ on all linear layers. Restricting adaptation to MLP layers helps DeepSeek at lower ranks but not at $r = 64$. A possible explanation is that this reasoning-oriented model needs more adapter capacity to reconcile its long free-form reasoning with the strict JSON output format; we have not tested this explanation directly.

Quantisation. Base-model quantisation reduces the dominant memory cost, the frozen weights, at both training and inference time. At the released default, 4-bit NF4 lowers tool-calling F1 by 0.013–0.028, and at the combined configuration it causes no measurable loss for any of the three models, while halving inference memory. None of the F1 differences between quantised and 16-bit models in Table 8 and Table 10 is statistically significant. The latency penalty, roughly double for LLM.int8 and up to 53% for NF4, is a property of the bitsandbytes kernels, which dequantise weights on the fly. It should not be read as an inherent cost of 4-bit inference: post-training quantisation with dedicated kernels (Activation-aware Weight Quantisation (AWQ), post-training quantisation for Generative Pre-trained Transformers (GPTQ)) or on-device runtimes would likely change this picture. For a proactive agent that evaluates context continuously, the memory reduction is what allows a 7–8B reasoner to run on a single consumer GPU or edge accelerator, but the latency increase directly lengthens the decision loop.

Pruning. With the pruning mask preserved, unstructured WANDA pruning keeps the task metrics up to 30% sparsity (no significant difference to the dense model), but at 50% sparsity tool-calling F1 drops by 0.10 (95% CI $[-0.13, -0.07]$) and Acc-Args by 0.14, and the semi-structured 4:8 and 2:4 patterns lose 0.12 and 0.27 F1 (Table 18). Magnitude pruning without activation statistics already loses 0.06 F1 at 30% and collapses at 50%. Because the pruned weights are stored densely, none of these settings reduces memory or latency. Structured pruning of MLP dimensions brings real memory and latency savings, but the task degrades quickly; with magnitude-based group importance, the model collapses to never predicting a need for assistance. For a proactive agent, this failure mode is particularly harmful because it is silent: the agent appears to work but never acts. Activation-based importance degrades gradually, which indicates that data-dependent criteria are needed for structured pruning in this setting. A further lesson concerns the recovery step: merging a LoRA adapter into a pruned model silently restores dense weights, so the sparsity has to be re-applied (or the recovery made mask-aware) and verified before evaluation.

Cost–performance trade-off. Among the techniques tested, 4-bit quantisation of the base model with a well-chosen LoRA configuration offers the best trade-off: it matches or exceeds the released 16-bit model at about half the inference memory. Structured pruning, which loses 0.10 F1 already at 10%, and unstructured pruning without sparse kernels do not provide a useful trade-off in our setting.

7.3 Limitations

Test-set selection and single-run evaluation. The released split has no validation set, so all configuration sweeps are evaluated on the test split. The "best configuration" results should therefore be interpreted as optimistic upper bounds from a sensitivity sweep rather than a tuned model selection. In contrast, the reproduction results for the released and paper configurations (Table 2) evaluate the specified configurations directly without hyperparameter selection. Apart from the released and paper configurations, which we trained with three seeds, each setting is evaluated from a single training run ($k = 1$), so its between-run

variance is not estimated. With 400 test samples, differences of a few hundredths in a single metric should not be over-interpreted.

Learning-rate grid. The largest learning rate tested, 2×10^{-4}, is the best for all three models, so the optimum may lie outside the grid; for Llama the gain over 10^{-4} is already small (0.786 versus 0.777), which suggests that its curve is flattening. Only the released and the paper's learning rates were trained with three seeds; 10^{-5} and 2×10^{-4} are single runs. Because the released split has no validation set, the grid is evaluated on the test split and is not used for model selection.

Scope of cost measurements. Costs are measured for the reasoner only, with the bitsandbytes runtime on a single GPU. The perception stage (vision-language model and speech recognition), deployment runtimes and on-device measurements are out of scope.

Pruning. Pruning was evaluated on `Llama-3.1-8B-Instruct` only, structured pruning was restricted to MLP dimensions because preliminary experiments with attention-head pruning degraded the model severely, and recovery used LoRA rather than full fine-tuning.

Knowledge distillation (negative result). We also attempted response-based distillation from each 7–8B model into a 1–1.5B student of the same family (Llama-3.2-1B, DeepSeek-R1-1.5B, Qwen2.5-1.5B), with a combined cross-entropy and Kullback–Leibler objective (temperature 3, $\alpha = 0.5$), 4-bit NF4 quantisation, and a maximum sequence length of 1024 tokens to fit both models into 24 GB. None of the students learned to produce the required JSON output, so no task metrics could be computed. The most likely cause is truncation: *ContextAgent* prompts with tool definitions, persona and context regularly exceed 1024 tokens, so the students rarely saw complete instructions and targets. We therefore do not draw conclusions about distillation for proactive agents; a fair test would first fine-tune the student on the full-length data and distil from cached teacher outputs.

7.4 Future Work

Proactive agents spend most of their time deciding *not* to act. A natural efficiency direction specific to this setting is to emit the proactive score before the thought trace and stop generation when it falls below the threshold, or to gate the full reasoner with a small model trained only on the proactive score. Measuring cost per hour of monitoring rather than per sample, and evaluating post-training quantisation kernels and on-device runtimes, would make the efficiency conclusions directly applicable to deployment.

8 Conclusion

We reproduced *ContextAgent* on *ContextAgentBench* with the authors' released artefacts. The central claims hold: supervised fine-tuning with personas and thought traces clearly outperforms in-context learning, and the in-context baselines reproduce closely. The fine-tuned models, however, reach substantially higher scores than reported, and the size of the gap depends on a learning-rate discrepancy between the paper and the released code. Users of the benchmark should therefore treat the reported fine-tuned scores as a lower bound and report the learning rate, effective batch size and number of optimiser steps.

Under resource constraints, 4-bit quantisation of the base model combined with an adequate LoRA configuration shows no significant loss in tool-calling F1 for any of the three models at half the inference memory, at the cost of higher latency with on-the-fly dequantisation. Unstructured pruning preserves performance up to 30% sparsity, provided the sparsity is re-applied after merging the recovery adapter, but brings no efficiency gain on dense hardware, and structured pruning yields efficiency gains only at a large and sometimes silent loss of proactive behaviour.

Code availability

Code, configuration files and raw evaluation outputs are available at an anonymised repository for review: anonymized: https://anonymous.4open.science/r/tmlr-sub-eval/ (Camera-ready: https://github.com/DAT8-CS-IT/revisiting-contextagent.)

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A Acronyms

AWQ Activation-aware Weight Quantisation

Acc-Args Argument Accuracy

Acc-P Proactive Prediction Accuracy

FD False Detection rate

GPTQ post-training quantisation for Generative Pre-trained Transformers

KD Knowledge Distillation

LLM Large Language Model

LoRA Low-Rank Adaptation

MD Missed Detection rate

MLP Multilayer Perceptron

NF4 4-bit NormalFloat

QLoRA Quantised Low-Rank Adaptation

RMSE Root Mean Square Error

SFT Supervised Fine-Tuning

TOST two one-sided tests

WANDA Pruning by **W**eights **and** **A**ctivations

B Training Costs

Table 14: Training cost of the reproduced *ContextAgent* models (released configuration). Runs with the exact released configuration (no LoRA dropout, no gradient checkpointing).

		Costs		
Method	Model	Duration (s)↓	GPU Peak (GB)↓	GPU Avg (GB)↓
ContextAgent	Llama-3.1-8B-Ins	2691.0	21.02	17.79
	DeepSeek-R1-7B	3446.6	21.02	16.68
	Qwen2.5-7B-Ins	2862.2	21.35	17.08

Table 15: Training cost under base-model quantisation (LoRA $r = 8$, learning rate 5×10^{-5}). All rows, including 16-bit, use the settings of the LoRA experiments (LoRA dropout 0.05, gradient checkpointing; Section 5.3), so durations and memory are not directly comparable to Table 14.

		Costs		
Model	Q-Bit	Duration (s)↓	GPU Peak (GB)↓	GPU Avg (GB)↓
LLaMA-3.1-8B-Ins	16-bit	**2855.8**	21.10	18.94
	8-bit	3656.8	19.07	18.75
	4-bit	3248.1	**11.28**	**10.77**
DeepSeek-R1-7B	16-bit	**2687.8**	21.12	18.12
	8-bit	3398.6	19.95	**13.6**
	4-bit	3474.7	**18.91**	16.15
Qwen2.5-7B-Ins	16-bit	**2935.6**	21.37	17.31
	8-bit	3609.9	19.95	**13.9**
	4-bit	3211.3	**15.95**	15.18

Table 16: Training cost of the combined configurations.

		Costs		
Model	Config	Duration (s)↓	GPU Peak (GB)↓	GPU Avg (GB)↓
LLaMA-3.1-8B-Ins	$r = 32, lr = 1.0 \times 10^{-4}$, all, 16-bit	3006.5	21.63	18.67
	$r = 32, lr = 1.0 \times 10^{-4}$, all, 4-bit	3305.7	12.24	11.73
DeepSeek-R1-7B	$r = 64, lr = 1.0 \times 10^{-4}$, all, 16-bit	–	–	–
	$r = 64, lr = 1.0 \times 10^{-4}$, all, 4-bit	3402.6	11.54	11.16
Qwen2.5-7B-Ins	$r = 32, lr = 1.0 \times 10^{-4}$, all, 16-bit	2985.1	21.91	18.23
	$r = 32, lr = 1.0 \times 10^{-4}$, all, 4-bit	2996.5	15.26	14.69

Table 16 (Table 16): fill in the DeepSeek 16-bit row when the cost re-run finishes (job 912265), bold the better values, and add DeepSeek to the training-cost sentence under Table 10.

Table 17: Recovery training cost after pruning (`Llama-3.1-8B-Instruct`).

Structure	Method	%	Costs		
			Duration (s)↓	GPU Peak (GB)↓	GPU Avg (GB)↓
Unstructured	Wanda	10	2787.0	19.54	18.95
		30	2770.5	19.54	18.90
		50	2765.2	19.54	18.87
	Magnitude	10	2782.0	19.54	18.79
		30	2751.5	19.54	18.93
		50	2710.2	19.54	18.97
Structured	Activation	10	2891.5	19.71	18.84
		30	1986.3	15.33	14.55
		50	1479.3	11.14	10.64
	Magnitude	10	2745.0	19.71	18.83
		30	1926.3	15.33	14.43
		50	1524.0	11.14	10.36

C Semi-structured Pruning

Semi-structured pruning aims to balance the flexibility of unstructured pruning with the hardware efficiency of structured sparsity. A widely adopted formulation is **N:M** sparsity, in which exactly N non-zero weights are retained within each contiguous block of M parameters (Mishra et al., 2021). This specific pattern is highly relevant for modern hardware accelerators, such as GPUs equipped with Sparse Tensor Cores, which natively accelerate 2:4 sparsity to achieve tangible inference speedups.

Table 18: Semi-structured pruning (50% sparsity) of `Llama-3.1-8B-Instruct` after recovery fine-tuning. The pruning mask is re-applied after merging the recovery adapter; Wanda rows show the mean of three evaluations.

Structure	Pruning	%	Proactive Predictions				Tool Calling			
			Acc-P↑	MD↓	FD↓	RMSE↓	Precision↑	Recall↑	F1-score↑	Acc-Args↑
Semi-structured	Wanda	2:4 (50%)	0.703	0.162	0.135	2.291	0.511	0.458	0.469	0.185
		4:8 (50%)	**0.862**	0.094	**0.044**	**1.423**	**0.669**	**0.608**	**0.620**	**0.432**
	Magnitude	2:4 (50%)	0.805	**0.080**	0.115	1.740	0.530	0.518	0.517	0.276
		4:8 (50%)	0.768	0.163	0.070	1.810	0.571	0.538	0.544	0.305

Table 18 shows semi-structured pruning at 50% sparsity with the pruning mask re-applied after recovery. All four settings lose substantially against the dense model (F1-score 0.735; all differences significant). The less constrained 4:8 pattern is better than 2:4 for WANDA (F1-score 0.620 versus 0.469, Acc-Args 0.432 versus 0.185) and slightly better for magnitude pruning (0.544 versus 0.517). With 4:8, WANDA is clearly better than magnitude pruning (0.620 versus 0.544) and close to unstructured WANDA at the same sparsity (0.634); with 2:4, both criteria fail similarly (0.469 and 0.517), with Acc-P falling to 0.70–0.81.

Table 19: Recovery training cost after semi-structured pruning.

Structure	Method	%	Costs		
			Duration (s)↓	GPU Peak (GB)↓	GPU Avg (GB)↓
Semi-structured	Wanda	2:4 (50%)	2719.8	19.54	18.82
		4:8 (50%)	2732.5	19.54	18.91
	Magnitude	2:4 (50%)	2700.6	19.54	18.96
		4:8 (50%)	2726.3	19.54	18.89

Training costs are reported in Table 19. Peak GPU memory is 19.54 GB for all configurations, as for unstructured pruning, and training times range from 2701 to 2733 seconds.

Table 20: Inference cost after semi-structured pruning.

Structure	Method	%	Costs					
			GPU Peak (GB)↓	GPU Avg (GB)↓	Avg Batch (s)↓	Min Batch (s)↓	Max Batch (s)↓	Avg Samples/s↑
Semi-structured	Wanda	2:4 (50%)	15.7	15.7	8.7	1.9	69.0	0.1150
		4:8 (50%)	15.7	15.7	7.6	3.0	68.4	0.1324
	Magnitude	2:4 (50%)	15.7	15.7	9.0	3.6	69.0	0.1116
		4:8 (50%)	15.7	15.7	8.2	2.3	68.6	0.1223

At inference (Table 20), peak GPU memory remains 15.7 GB and the average batch time 7.6–9.0 s, similar to the dense model (9.0 s); differences come from output length, not from the kernels. Exploiting 2:4 sparsity requires sparse tensor-core kernels, which our inference stack did not use.